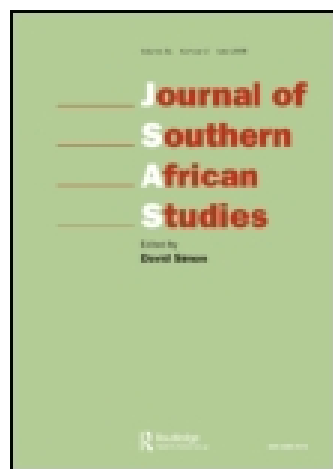


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Kwacha: The Violence of Money in Malawi's Politics, 1954–2004#*

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One of the strongest limiting factors in the transition to participatory democracy in Malawi is the failure of independent and sustainable cadres of young politicians to emerge. This is caused by the role that money, generated via the informal economy, plays in Malawian politics. This money is channelled into politics via achikulire (neo-patrimonial patrons or 'big men'), usually without party accountability. This factor may be more critical in retarding the development of participatory democracy than social structure, ethnicity, religion, donors or other aspects of political dynamics. The socio-economic impediments to achieving participatory democracy tend to be viewed through economic theories appropriate to contexts more westernised than Malawi. I will argue that some of the 'disorder' in Africa observed by Chabal and Daloz (1999) is actually a function of the unresolved historical dynamic between two economic sectors: the formal cash (colonial European and postcolonial black elite) sector and the 'informal' non-cash (rural/peasantry) sector. By controlling this dynamic, neo-patrimonial politicians can minimise ethnic, social, political and constitutional barriers to their hold on power. Successful Malawian politicians have a triple-edged relationship with the peasantry: peasants are their masters at election time, subjects at most times and business clients at harvest. This article will analyse the formation of new patron–client relationships during the 1991–1994 political transition and show how these were successfully exploited by United Democratic Front achikulire. In 2004, money sourced through achikulire enabled Bakili Muluzi to impose his designated successor on a reluctant party and nation, leading to the 2004–2005 constitutional crises.

KuNyasalande Azungu achuluiche, nambo mbiya kwangali.¹ Wandu agamba kwenda! (Ndiche Mwalale)

[So many Europeans in Nyasaland now but there is no money. People still migrate ...].²

Introduction

Malawi's postcolonial political history has been dominated by life-President Dr Kamuzu Banda's formidable patronage-based one-party system.³ His Malawi Congress Party (MCP) controlled Malawi until the Referendum of June 1993, which decided in favour of a multiparty system. Foreign and domestic economic, social, religious, political and other

* 'Kwacha', the name of Malawi's currency, means 'A new day dawns!'.
Thanks to John McCracken, Patrick O'Malley, Terence Ranger, David Rubadiri, Jim Wilkie, Kings Phiri, Kenneth King, the History Department at Chancellor College, and anonymous peer reviewers and Malawians.

1 *Mbiya*: money, disposable/surplus cash.

2 This is an acerbic comment on 1950s Malawi by the popular musician, Ndiche Mwalale.

3 J. Hooper, 'The Politics of Patronage' (MA thesis, University of York, 1984).

factors had forced Dr Banda's hand. In May 1994, when Bakili Muluzi led the United Democratic Front (UDF) to victory, observers thought Malawi had a 'fair chance' of democratic consolidation.⁴

Impediments to sustainable sub-Saharan African participatory democracy are often seen in terms of socio-economic theories appropriate to more westernised countries.⁵ Here I argue that one of the most important limiting factors in Malawi's transition has been the failure of young cadres of politicians to emerge, in sustainable and effectively independent forms, because of the role that money – arising from or transmitted via the informal economy – has played in Malawian politics. This usually internally-derived money is channelled, without accountability, into the political process via *achikulire* (neo-patrimonial individuals – patrons or 'big men').⁶ Thus, the production of a younger political cadre independent of older politicians has been thwarted.⁷ Informally sourced money may be more critical than ideology, social structures, ethnicity, religion, donors and other factors in retarding the development of Malawi's participatory democracy. The informal sector here includes all informal activities by actors also otherwise engaged in formal business.⁸ This informal sector has also played a formative role in the 1991–1994 transition and beyond.

My argument highlights Malawi's rural and dual socio-economic nature, as well as making a critical linguistic distinction between *katangale* (selling food for cash) and *ziphuphu* (corruption). I distinguish between formal and informal trading activities: *katangale* is a coping phenomenon in subsistence economies, not corruption. I also discuss the 'economic politicisation' of actors who were marginalised from Dr Banda's patronage system and the regional variations in this phenomenon. Analysis of the tussles between intellectuals and the *achikulire* patrons in relation to the new post-1999 developments in political parties will also reveal the critical role of informally-derived money.

The Context of the Democratic Transition

Scholars have analysed Malawi's democratic transition from various perspectives.⁹ More appropriate to more westernised countries, these analyses of sub-Saharan African politics emphasise the role of education, institutions and systems. By default they exclude the role of

4 C. Clapham and J. Wiseman, 'Assessing the Prospects for the Consolidation of Democracy in Africa', in J. Wiseman (ed.), *Democracy and Political Change in Sub-Saharan Africa* (London, Routledge, 1995), pp. 220–32.

5 Compare P. Chabal and J-P. Daloz, *Africa Works: Disorder as Political Instrument* (London, James Currey, 1999).

6 *Achikulire*: lit. big man, social, organisational elder or boss.

7 M. Bratton and N. van de Walle, *Democratic Experiments in Africa: Regime Transitions in Comparative Perspective* (Cambridge, Cambridge University Press, 1997), p. 62.

8 See E. Aryeetey, 'Formal and Informal Economic Activities', in S. Ellis (ed.), *Africa Now: People, Policies, Institutions* (London, Heinemann, 1996), pp. 119–35; and E. Ngalande Banda, F. Nankhuni, and E. Chirwa, 'Economy and Democracy: Background, Current Situation and Future Prospects', in K. Phiri, and K. Ross (eds), *Democratisation in Malawi: A Stocktaking* (Zomba, Kachere, 1998), pp. 70–86. See also G. Anders, 'Civil Servants between Support Networks, the Free Market and Civil Service Reform', in H. Englund (ed.), *A Democracy of Chameleons: Politics and Culture in The New Malawi* (Uppsala, Nordic Africa Institute, 2002), pp. 43–61. K. King, 'Rethinking the History of Kenya's Informal Economy against the Current Challenge to Industry in Africa', in S. McGrath, C. Jedrej, K. King and J. Thompson (eds), *Rethinking African History* (Edinburgh, Centre of African Studies), pp. 407–9.

9 See P. Forster, 'Culture, Nationalism, and the Invention of Tradition in Malawi', *The Journal of Modern African Studies*, 32, 3 (1994), pp. 477–97; J. Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics and Poverty: the Democratic Transition in Malawi, 1961–1999* (Glasgow, Dudu Nsomba Publications, 1996); Phiri and Ross (eds), *Democratisation*, pp. 52–69; and M. Schoffeleers, *In Search of Truth and Justice: Confrontations Between Church and State in Malawi 1960–1994* (Zomba, Kachere, 1999).

the rural peasantry and less-westernised aspects of indigenous culture. Exemplified by chiefs, traditional authority and its hold on rural and urban people is largely ignored. Mostly living within subsistence economies, chiefs have historically had little say in socio-economic matters.¹⁰ Both Banda and Muluzi tamed and marginalised chiefs.¹¹

Malawi's westernised 'nation-state' institutions control the 'cash economy', the terrain of the urbanised literate elite and, due to neglect and rural resistance, may have as little control of the rural peasantry as did colonial government institutions.¹² The cash economy of the elite and the rural peasantry, however, interface in the conversion of subsistence products into cash and vice versa.¹³ To access goods that can only be purchased with money, a peasant must convert maize into cash.¹⁴ During the 2001–2002 famine, maize became the currency of food for the poor, as well as money for the comprador classes, as elite businessmen exploited this subsistence/cash interface.¹⁵

Another relevant factor is the historical continuity between the economically impoverished colonial *Nyasaland* and donor-dependent postcolonial Malawi.¹⁶ Colonial grants have been replaced by postcolonial loans and grants, creating a debt-burdened donor-dependent state. The hybrid elite – produced by Christianity, Islam and western education – although constituting only 20 per cent of the population – consumes 47 per cent of Malawi's resources.¹⁷ Postcolonial forms of *thangata* (indentured labour) persist. Competition between the elite and the poor is intense and one-sided and has political ramifications.¹⁸

If we define the informal sector as including all those commercial activities and transactions not subject to taxation or state regulation, then virtually all classes and races resident in Malawi engage with the informal sector, as, for example, in informal currency dealings. The largely subsistence nature of the economy and the majority who live outside the formal cash economy make this inevitable.¹⁹ The need for cash manifests at the interface between the subsistence and formal economy, a dynamic between the 'traditional' rural/subsistence sector and the formal elite sector crucial to this argument. Cash is necessary to access educational, medical, transport and other services, thus becoming synonymous with

10 Muluzi blocked creation of a Senate, including chiefs.

11 J. Lwanda, 'Tradition, Democracy and Progress: The Case for Malawi', work in preparation. Compare J. Teffo, 'Monarchy and Democracy: Towards a Cultural Renaissance', *Journal of African Philosophy*, 1, 1 (2002). Retrieved 12 March 2004 from <http://www.africanphilosophy.com/afphil/vol1.1/teffo.pdf>

12 Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, p. 22; and J. Lwanda, *Politics, Culture and Medicine in Malawi* (Zomba, Kachere, 2005), pp. 70–72.

13 Useful here is S. Devereux, *Making Less Last Longer: Informal Safety Nets in Malawi* (Sussex, Institute of Developmental Studies, 1999).

14 See B. Chinsinga, 'The Politics of Poverty Alleviation in Malawi', in Englund (ed.), *A Democracy of Chameleons*, pp. 29–32.

15 Donated monies were diverted from rural targets into the elite cash sector. See S. Devereux, 'The Malawi Famine of 2002: Causes, Consequences and Policy Lessons' (unpublished paper, presented at the Lilongwe Capital Hotel, 30 May 2002); and K. Bird, D. Booth and N. Pratt, *The Contribution of Politics, Policy Failures, and Bad Governance to the Food Security Crisis in Southern Africa* (London, Overseas Development Institute, 2002). Comprador is used to denote the small- to medium-scale retail merchant class. Malawian comprador classes share some features of the original Chinese comprador classes. (Compare with Mao Tse-Tung, 'Analysis of the Classes in Chinese Society'). Retrieved from <http://www.marxists.org/reference/archive/mao/works/1926/03.htm> on 19 March 2004.

16 *Nyasaland* is a term of 'self-deprecatory' endearment for the 'beloved poor country'. Compare *Nyasanet* and *Manyasa*.

17 See the Malawi Poverty Reduction Strategy paper at www.imf.org/External/NP/PRSP/2002/mw/01/043002.pdf

18 G. Shepperson, and T. Price, *Independent African* (Edinburgh, Edinburgh University Press, 1958), pp. 1–18; J. McCracken, *Politics and Christianity in Malawi 1875–1940* (Cambridge, Cambridge University Press, 1977), pp. 303–44; G. Mhone (ed.), *Malawi at the Crossroads: The Post-colonial Political Economy* (Harare, Sapes Trust, 1992), pp. xv–33; and Lwanda, *Politics, Culture and Medicine*, p. 16.

19 See F. Pryor, *The Political Economy of Poverty, Equity and Growth: A World Bank Comparative Study of Malawi and Madagascar* (Oxford, Oxford University Press, 1991); Mhone, (ed.), *Malawi at the Crossroads; and The World Bank, Malawi: Human Resources and Poverty* (Washington, World Bank, 1995).

social, political and economic mobility and power. Until the 1950s, possession of significant disposable *mbiya* (cash) was largely limited to Europeans – most Africans' wealth being measured in terms of grain, livestock and access to communal land. In the 1950s, however, a few Africans began to break through into the cash economy proper.²⁰

The 'disorder model' of Chabal and Daloz (1999) is, however, insufficient to explain how this dynamic affects Malawian politics, for not everything about the country's political and economic processes is disorderly.²¹ Despite the surface appearance of chaos, *achikulire* politicians *methodically* and *systematically* exploit these complex postcolonial socio-economic structural anomalies, including processes of 'informalisation' that take place at the interface between Malawi's informal subsistence and formal monetary sectors.

Katangale versus Ziphuphu

Indigenous Malawians linguistically distinguish between *katangale* (informal trade) and *ziphuphu* (corruption). Failure to acknowledge this distinction has marred otherwise useful work, which as a result uncritically criminalises the indigenous rural socio-economy. Accounts of the informal economy tend to use the post-independence elite appropriation of the word *katangale*.²² The 2003 English Chichewa-Chinyanja Dictionary defines *katangale* as 'high level corruption', *kangachepe* as 'low level corruption' and *ziphuphu* as [also] 'corruption'.²³ In this rendering, 'bribe' becomes *chiphuphu* (singular; *ziphuphu*, plural) or *kangachepe*.²⁴ This use of *kangachepe* is linguistically disputable. *Kangachepe* (lit. 'even the smallest') traditionally refers to 'tokens of appreciation' – *however small* – for services rendered (not *services expected*). Thus, using *kangachepe* to mean 'corruption' criminalises traditional culture.

Katangale, the appropriated word for the informal economic sector, comes from the Chewa word for a big food basket, *mtanga* (diminutive: *katanga*).²⁵ *Katangale* is thus literally 'trade out of a *small* food basket' – converting food into cash to enable the subsistence producers to access formal sector goods. The use of the word *katangale*, for corruption or 'generating' cash informally, is a negative shift from its originally honourable connotations.

Rural *katangale* is actually a means of straddling the subsistence and formal sectors and enabling rural peasants to convert food crops into cash and bridge the gap between the 'First' and 'Fourth' economic worlds. The growing width of this gap can be grasped by considering *Lamp* magazine's monthly estimate of the 'Malawi breadbasket', which itemises essential items for an average family of six. In 1986 the basket cost K247.13. By 2003, this had risen to K6,543 (US \$73), a total of K78,516 (US \$872.4) per annum.²⁶ The 2003 per capita income for Malawi was K14,400 (US \$160) per annum. This huge gap which must be bridged to enable the *average* – not *poor* – family to survive is partly filled via barter and other informal activities.²⁷

20 J. McCracken, 'Blantyre Transformed: Class, Conflict and Nationalism in Urban Malawi', *Journal of African History*, 39 (1998), pp. 247–69.

21 Chabal and Daloz, *Africa Works*, pp. 155–63 and xv–xxi.

22 G. Anders, 'Corruption in Context: Civil Servants in Malawi as Providers and Recipients of Social Support' (seminar paper, 13th Biennial Congress of the African Association of Political Science, Yaonde, Cameroon, 19–22 June 2001).

23 S. Paas (ed.), *English–Chichewa–Chinyanja Dictionary* (Zomba, CLAIM, 2003), p. 88. The Montfort Missionaries, *Ziphuphu Zimakunongani Inu Ndi Mtundu Wonse* (Balaka, Montfort Media, 1995) terminology is preferred here: *ziphuphu* = corruption.

24 Paas, *English–Chichewa*, p. 50.

25 *Ibid.*, p. 33.

26 *The Lamp*, 42 (July–August 2003), p. 23.

27 Mhone (ed.), *Malawi at the Crossroads*, p. 182.

Katangale, thus, began as a coping mechanism when the cash economy was introduced, only partly replacing the indigenous barter economy.²⁸

Ziphuphu (corruption) or *kuba* (stealing) cannot be equated with rural *katangale*, although they have become associated with urban *katangale*.²⁹ Goods originally acquired through corruption or theft can end up in the hands of informal sector *katangale* agents who may be innocent of the original *ziphuphu* appropriation. This is not splitting legal hairs; in Malawi, critical issues of poverty, privilege, power and access to resources apply. *Achikulire* patrons have power to extract company or government goods, then shift them through *katangale*. Because, when used in this way, *katangale* can subvert the formal economy, the term *neo-katangale* best describes this *ziphuphu*, or corruption-related, variety.

Class and Cash, Power and Patronage

The dichotomy between subsistence versus cash was acutely highlighted during the nationalist fight for independence. The largely 'elite' Nyasaland African Congress (NAC) raised money from civil servants' and migrant workers' donations, one such donor being Dr Banda, then a British general practitioner.³⁰ Between 1958 and 1961, the sale of party cards gradually became the main source of funds.

As a party of the masses after 1963, the MCP increasingly sought donations in the form of agricultural produce. The resultant 'baskets' of produce were converted into cash. This donation system became coercive, 'formalised' by the mostly unpaid party workers who legitimised their pilfering at all levels of the pyramid by pointing to their unpaid nationalist and development role.³¹ Formalising of 'donations' also took place between the party and the Asian community. Between 1953 and 1961, Africans saw most Asians as supporting the United Federal Party (UFP), which most Africans opposed. After independence, Asians wanted to change this perception, a desire exploited by the MCP, which began to 'source' money from Asian businesses.

The most extreme example of sourcing funds through legitimisation of expropriation was the Forfeiture Act of 1966, a device for appropriating the assets of deported Asians and detained Africans who had fallen foul of the MCP regime.³² The Forfeiture Act fed off the business culture of *kuthetsana* (finishing each other off), in which businessmen falsely denounced their competitors as political dissidents.³³ While appropriated assets were either fed into the MCP patronage system or passed informally to individuals within the MCP, currency hoarding by Asian, European and some African businessmen became insurance against future 'forfeiture'.³⁴

The involvement of external actors, such as Tiny Rowland of Lonrho, in MCP financial activities, accelerated the forfeiture process. With allies such as Rowland, Banda could afford to curtail the activities of less financially useful African and Indian traders competing with his own and his donors' companies.³⁵ Rowland bought shares in the Nyasaland Railways in 1962,

28 J. Cross, 'The Informal Sector', in P. O'Hara (ed.), *Encyclopaedia of Political Economy* (London, Routledge, 1998).

29 Montfort Missionaries, *Ziphuphu Zimakuonongani*, pp. 1–4.

30 P. Short, *Banda* (London, Routledge and Kegan Paul, 1974), pp. 41–60.

31 S. Joffe, 'Political Culture and Communication in Malawi: The Hortatory Regime of Dr Banda' (Ph.D. thesis, Boston University, 1973); Hooper, 'The Politics of Patronage'; and J. Lwanda, *Kamuzu Banda of Malawi* (Glasgow, Dudu Nsomba Publications, 1993), pp. 91–6.

32 Short, *Banda*, p. 270.

33 Africa Watch, *Where Silence Rules: The Suppression of Dissent in Malawi* (London, Africa Watch, 1990), pp. 24–5; and Lwanda, *Kamuzu Banda*, pp. 73–124.

34 Unattributable personal communications with Asian and African businessmen, September 1994–June 1995 and June 2000–July 2002.

35 *Ibid.*, p. 367.

followed by the British Central Africa Company in 1963.³⁶ A further investment produced the politically important Sugar Corporation of Malawi (SUCOMA). LONRHO became a source of many donations to Dr Banda individually, as well as to his party and businesses.³⁷

The MCP donations system – which appropriated and diverted substantial rural and external money to party patronage – was outside of, and detrimental to, the formal economy. By coercively targeting rural and urban African businessmen, the MCP forced into the informal sector the weaker members of the formal business sector already struggling to compete with stronger Asian commerce. Whether politically inclined or not, African businessmen were disadvantaged and sometimes ruined when the demands of political patronage were added to the demands of the extended family, *kuthetsana* and their poor capitalisation.³⁸ Moreover, business success for Africans in the retail and transport sectors depended on renewable government licences to distribute consumables. Businesses thus had to compete politically as well as economically to succeed. The best licences involved SUCOMA sugar distribution quotas, and one prominent ‘sugar baron’ – from 1979, when he became MCP Secretary General – was Bakili Muluzi.

To succeed in Malawi one had to be adept at straddling both the rural/subsistence and western/formal sectors as well as staying in political favour. Economic success thus became synonymous with political success, propped up by informal activity to generate patronage income. Particularly between 1975 and 1989, this drove many African businessmen into the informal economy, where they developed mutual survival networks, sometimes despite previous political differences.³⁹ The association between Charles Kahumbe, a medical doctor, and Steve Kazembe, a former policeman, is illustrative. After being sacked from his job for political reasons, Kahumbe became a fish transporter and came into contact with Kazembe, who owned an ice plant in Mangochi.⁴⁰ Both later became UDF founding members.

Banda-era African business interests lay largely in transport, retail and small- or medium-scale farming of tobacco and other cash crops.⁴¹ Marginalised politicians resorted to informal activities that competed with and displaced some *anthu wamba* (peasantry-based) *katangale* activities. This invasion enabled the better-capitalised of these marginalised politicians to form ‘networks of trust’ and dependency with the peasantry. Through this process they gained valuable insights into how to exploit the cash/barter interface.

The relatively few, mostly senior civil servants, police and army officers and high-ranking MCP officials who obtained agricultural estates in the 1970s and 1980s remained loyal to the MCP during – and beyond – the transition of 1992 to 1994. Most were medium-scale estate tobacco farmers. This collective group also influenced, rather than competed with, the giant agro-industrial Press Corporation, where MCP board members ensured political control. The Press Corporation competed directly with the very African businessmen it was meant to help, through its rural retail (PTC Stores) and wholesale (Chipiku) outlets. Thus, the politically important African business sector made few inroads into the medium to large estate or manufacturing sectors, remaining essentially a comprador class.⁴² Dependence on tobacco and other cash crops entrenched them as seasonal traders.

36 T. Bower, *Tiny Rowland: A Rebel Tycoon* (London, Heinemann, 1993), pp. 71–7.

37 *Ibid.*, pp. 188 and 366.

38 Lwanda, *Kamuzu Banda*, 56–63; Mhone (ed.), *Malawi at the Crossroads*, pp. 34–48.

39 C. Kahumbe, personal communication, Glasgow, 4 April 1992.

40 C. Kahumbe, personal communication, Blantyre, 12 March 1993.

41 Mhone (ed.), *Malawi at the Crossroads*, pp. 38–48.

42 United Democratic Front leadership specialised in services and retail. Anything could be marketed: for example, an environment minister sold charcoal illegally (*The Nation*, Blantyre, 18 July 2003). Manufacturing has declined since 1994 (*Africa Confidential*, 45, 2, 23 January 2004, p. 46).

The Regional Perspective

The intensity and types of informal activities carried out by different ethnic groups and within different districts and regions differ in important ways.⁴³ The majority of the Central Chewa *small* peasant farmers characteristically engaged in post-harvest *katangale* (conversion of food crops into cash), usually from local sites to entrepreneurs with transport.⁴⁴ The Northern Tumbuka population contained significantly more people with waged migrant, professional, blue collar, academic and civil service experience.⁴⁵ After 1964, Banda often regarded 'educated' northerners as *troublesome*.⁴⁶ Northern dissidents tended to be detained, exiled or made redundant.

The Southern Yao – and their 'Islamic' enclaves in Nkhota Kota and Salima in the centre of Malawi – had strong traditions of localised and long-distance *katangale* activities and migrant labour.⁴⁷ The Yao traditionally transported fish from Lakes Malawi and Chilwa, using trade routes that became significant communication networks during the 1991–1994 political transition.⁴⁸ These Southern business traditions absorbed and sustained politicians and traders marginalised during the various political crises, such as Henry Chipembere's uprising (1964–65), Gomile Kuntumanji's sacking (1968–69), Albert Muwalo's treason (1976–77), and the Mwanza Incident (1983–84).⁴⁹

In contrast, relatively few people from the Central region fell foul of Dr Banda for political reasons, except those charged with 'political' economic misdeeds, such as theft from Dr Banda's estates.⁵⁰ The reception book at Mikuyu Prison showed an overwhelming preponderance of Northern and Southern Region detainees, confirming these rough regional stereotypes.⁵¹

The Politics of Money

In Malawi, inclusion in the political elite confers greater access to the westernised cash economy. The black elite who replaced the British in 1961 merely replicated the departing colonialists in their self-interested use of scarce national resources.⁵² Phipps noted the convergence of political power and economic power in an impoverished 1970s Malawi:

43 L. Vail (ed.), *The Creation of Tribalism in Southern Africa* (London, James Currey, 1989), pp. 151–92.

44 Before 'IMF liberalisation' ADMARC provided transport. Now, MCP and UDF *achikulire* transport produce, often exploiting this role to manipulate crop prices.

45 The northern historical educational advantage translated into an over-representation of the Tumbuka in civil service jobs. See McCracken, *Politics and Christianity*, pp. 303–44; and W. Chirwa, 'Democracy, Ethnicity, and Regionalism: The Malawian Experience', in Phiri and Ross (eds), *Democratisation*, pp. 52–63.

46 Lwanda, *Kamuzu Banda*, pp. 191–6; and Chirwa, 'Democracy, Ethnicity, and Regionalism', pp. 52–69.

47 D. Bone, (ed.), *Malawi's Muslims* (Zomba, Kachere, 2002), pp. 42–6; A. Msiska, 'The Spread of Islam in Malawi and its Impact on Yao Rites of Passage, 1870–1960', *Society of Malawi Journal*, 48, 1 (1995), pp. 49–86; and Short, *Banda*, p. 90.

48 C. Kahumbe, personal communication, Glasgow, April 1992.

49 Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 38–60 and 79–81; and P. O'Malley, *Living Dangerously* (Glasgow, Dudu Nsomba Publications, 1998), pp. 1–70. See J. McCracken, 'Fishing and the Colonial Economy: The Case of Malawi', *Journal of African History*, 28, pp. 413–29; W. Chirwa, 'Theba is Power: Rural Labour, Migrancy and Fishing in Malawi, 1890s–1985' (Ph.D. thesis, Queen's University, Canada, 1992); and H. Chipembere (R. Rotberg, ed.), *Hero of the Nation: Chipembere of Malawi* (Zomba, Kachere, 2002), pp. 239–54.

50 According to Jack Mapanje, 'those who had stolen tobacco from Dr Banda's estates' (personal communication, York, December 1991).

51 Personal examination of Mikuyu Prison reception book, at Mikuyu, on 29 June 2003. See also Amnesty International, *Prison Conditions in Malawi* (London, Amnesty, AFR 36/03/92, 1992); Africa Watch, *Where Silence Rules*, pp. 23–60; and Chirwa, 'Democracy, Ethnicity and Regionalism', pp. 52–69.

52 J. McCracken, *Politics and Christianity*, pp. 303–44; M.L.C. Mkandawire, 'Elites and Development in Independent African Countries of Africa' (unpublished BA dissertation, Chancellor College Library, Zomba); and K. Phiri, 'History and the Past, Present and Future of Black People', Professorial inaugural lecture, Chancellor College, Zomba, 14 September 2001.

At the moment the government may be the most important source of entrepreneurial actions. The charismatic leaders of the days of independence who mobilised the people to remove the colonial powers have now given way to the charismatic party and at the moment the political entrepreneurs are paramount. These may be the key figures for the future with an influence that could be constructive or destructive. As Nkrumah said, 'Seek ye first the political kingdom and all will be added unto you'.⁵³

Banda urged his followers to exploit all possible business opportunities, partly to compensate for the slow pace of civil service Africanisation and low African wages.⁵⁴ As economic sustainability depended on loyalty to Banda, Nkrumah's dictum applied.

The Roots of the Opposition Movements

This dependence on loyalty to Dr Banda for economic survival produced thousands of disaffected educated, entrepreneurial and working-class groups between 1964 and 1989. The northern marginalised groups coalesced into loose networks, in line with their educational and civil service background. The most politically significant grouping was that around the Phwezi (Educational) Foundation, which in the mid-1980s included Denis Nkhwazi, an educator turned businessman; McNight Machika, a law lecturer; and Mupa Shumba, a university lecturer.⁵⁵ Their education and previous contacts enabled them to tap into the NGO network of funding, particularly the Scandinavian and American NGOs. The internal roots of the Alliance For Democracy (AFORD) lie here.⁵⁶ By nature, these elite intellectual networks excluded rural and less educated dissidents, a factor later limiting AFORD's Central and Southern region penetration. The covert political influence of the 'Phwezi Group' was such that in 1989 Banda 'warned' those northerners who wanted to 'secede' from Malawi.⁵⁷

Though no such overtly political grouping existed in southern or central Malawi prior to 1991, one can identify a number of networks and events around which future groupings would coalesce, including the active Middle Eastern-funded Muslim Association of Malawi; the 1983 killing of dissident cabinet ministers which galvanised some unfocused anti-Banda activists; the 1980s student activism at Chancellor College involving students such as Edge Kanyongolo and Hardy Nyirenda; and the negative reaction to John Tembo's ascendancy.⁵⁸ Tembo, Reserve Bank Governor and Banda's heir apparent, also chaired ten influential parastatals and engendered resentment of his perceived antagonism to *laissez-faire* business.

In the late 1980s, Malawians working for NGOs (non-governmental organisations) outspokenly criticised the government's failure to act to alleviate the expected 1988–1989 famine.⁵⁹ Indeed, poverty and famine politicised many of the peri-urban youth, especially vendors, who resented the MCP regime's constraints on 'free unfettered trade'.⁶⁰ Opposition activists later exploited the vendors' grievances.

Between 1985 and 1991 Mikuyu Prison held a number of prominent political detainees, including Jack Mapanje, George Ntafu, Machipisa Munthali, T.S. Banda, Sylvester Phiri, Frackson Zgambo, Tukula Sikweya, Blaise Machila and Brown Mpinganjira. The detainees often held 'informal seminars' on how to effect political change in Malawi, 'daydreaming' of

53 B.A. Phipps, 'Social Stratification as a Vehicle for Cognitive Mapping and Social Assertion' (seminar paper, Zomba, Chancellor College Library, 1972).

54 Short, *Banda*, pp. 274–78.

55 P. O'Malley, Personal oral communication, Glasgow, July 1996.

56 V. Ndovi, Personal oral and written communications, London and Glasgow, July–October 1993.

57 Africa Watch, *Where Silence Rules*, p. 59.

58 Kuwait, United Arab Emirates, Saudi Arabia and Libya.

59 G. Claver, Personal oral communication, Glasgow, 2 February 1993.

60 Dr Banda did not like the urban areas crowded with hawkers. See B. Muluzy, Y. Juwayeyi, M. Makhambura, and D. Phiri, *Democracy with a Price* (Blantyre, Jhango/Heinemann, 1999), p. 92.

what they would do on release.⁶¹ Most took philosophical and academic stances but a few were determined to achieve 'political justice by stopping Tembo's ascendancy to the presidency'.⁶²

Meanwhile the latest outcasts from Banda's regime, including Edward Bwanali, made common cause with business colleagues they had earlier 'finished', as they sought those rare economic spaces outside Banda's Press Corporation or Tembo's Limbe Leaf.⁶³

The New Movements and the Informal Sector

Brown Mpinganjira – Banda's former deputy chief information officer – spent four years in Mikuyu Prison.⁶⁴ On his release, he was assisted by university lecturers David Kerr and Patrick O'Malley to obtain a job at the British Council. Here, between 1991 and 1992, he benefited from the pro-democracy sentiments of his employer, Stewart Newton, and pro-democracy diplomats, such as Britain's Nigel Wenban-Smith and other European, American and Australian diplomats sympathetic to democratic change. This connection influenced the way in which the leadership of the United Democratic Party (UDP) political group Mpinganjira had formed: donor support was contingent on plausible and experienced opposition leadership.

In the North, however, the leadership question was less of a problem due to the existence of the Phwezi Group with its intellectuals with political experience, such as Dennis Nkhwazi a former political detainee, for example. Nevertheless when, in April 1992, Chakufwa Chihana publicly defied Banda and assumed *de facto* leadership of the Phwezi Group, he became so popular and well regarded that removing him from leadership became nigh impossible. His brief detention made this relatively unknown regional trade unionist in Lilongwe the focus of international attention in the fight for human rights in Malawi, and he was awarded the Robert F. Kennedy Human Rights Award.⁶⁵

Because of Mpinganjira's 'humility' in not taking the leadership, the search for a UDP leader led to the resurrection of an old football partnership (see below) which had Mpinganjira join forces with Bakili Muluzi, who had experience and money. Some intellectual and professional Malawians whom Mpinganjira had previously approached had 'cowardly' refused.⁶⁶ Muluzi, assisted by the Malawi Indian Kalaria Group, was one of the biggest independent businessmen outside the Banda/Tembo business hegemony.⁶⁷ The roots of the functional underground 'UDP' (United Democratic Party), later the UDF, lie in this marriage between the new blood politicians and intellectual activists on one hand and the businessmen 'who weren't scared of Tembo', on the other.

61 J. Mapanje, Personal oral communications, York and Glasgow, December 1991 to June 1993.

62 B.J. Mpinganjira, Personal oral communications, Glasgow and York, December 1992 to June 1993.

63 Limbe Leaf was the biggest Malawian tobacco company at the time.

64 Africa Watch, *Where Silence Rules*, p. 81.

65 In his bid for supremacy, Chihana 'hijacked' the leadership of a combined opposition delegation to Zambia in March 1992 (Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 112–17).

66 B. Mpinganjira, Personal oral communication, York, December 1992.

67 Muluzi benefited from his uncle, the Yao Chief Kapoloma's patronage. He was astute enough to survive his 1968 conviction for theft and the 1982 'voluntary retirement' (*This is Malawi*, June 1982, p. 3). Kalonga Stambuli (a former close Muluzi aide, mysteriously killed in February 2004) in 'How Malawians were hoodwinked by Muluzi' (mimeograph available from author and from the nyasanet archives [<http://listservs.icsors.org/archives/nyasanet.html>]) alleges that Muluzi was involved in persistent 'criminal' and 'fraudulent' activities and stole and diverted money from the MCP and Banda's farm; cashed MCP cheques through Indian traders; monopolised sugar quotas; stole from the Muslim Association; and was a notorious womaniser. *The Malawian* printed Muluzi's prison 'mug-shot' in 1994. These allegations are also available at *Wikipedia* http://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Bakili_Muluzi (retrieved 20 August 2003), Hutchinson's Media, <http://www.tiscali.co.uk/reference/encyclopaedia/hutchinson/m0044708.html> (retrieved 20 August 2003), in *The Chronicle*, 21 November 2005, *Sunday Herald*, 30 October 2005, and in the K. Kapeta (chair) 'Presidential Commission of Inquiry into the Strategic Grain Reserve' (Lilongwe, Office of the President and Cabinet, 2004).

Of the Mikuyu detainees, Mpinganjira was the most determined to become a political activist; others lacked the motivation, energy and talent for covert activities or preferred to return to academic and professional pursuits. Once Mapanje left for the UK after his release in 1991, Mpinganjira and George Ntafu were the only possible contacts between potential new blood politicians and the UDP's new blood origins in Mikuyu Prison. Ntafu lacked Mpinganjira's energy, burning anti-Tembo motivation, or talent for covert activities. Later, Cassim Chilumpha, a Polytechnic lecturer; Charles Kahumbe; Arthur Makhalira, a lawyer; and others became crucial pillars in the new blood wing of the UDF. Making this distinction between new blood politicians and businessmen arises from the need to separate those who were active and willing MCP political participants under the one-party regime from those who, given the context, merely served as civil servants, professionals or in parastatals. Mpinganjira is included in the new blood group here because of his crucial bridging role – from 1988 until the UDF Convention in December 1993 – between the Mikuyu UDF intellectual origins and the Muluzi-related business elements. Until December 1992, Mpinganjira was one of the two most powerful men in the UDF, but after the Referendum he became subservient to Bakili Muluzi, the UDF financial broker.

The organisational side of Malawi professional football in the 1980s demonstrates the complex and incestuous relationship that some of those who later became new blood politicians had with the old guard politicians. Some of the 1980s alumni at Wanderers Football Club included the sponsor – John Tembo's Limbe Leaf company; club secretary – Brown Mpinganjira; deputy secretary – Bakili Muluzi; team manager – Dumbo Lemani; sometime chair – Collins Chizumila; sometime board members – Dennis Kambalame (Petrol Commission tsar in 1995), Friday Jumbe (Agricultural Development and marketing Corporation (ADMARC) general manager and later Finance Minister in 2002), Clement Stambuli and Bob Khamisa.⁶⁸ The Wanderers Football Club and ADMARC connections highlight the crucial links that later enabled the UDF to allegedly tap into goods and funds from bodies like ADMARC and the Petrol Control Commission (PCC).⁶⁹

Between 1991 and 1993, Muluzi forged disparate groups into an alliance, or 'Front' as he called it, to remove Banda. Women and rural people were included at ceremonial levels only. The alliance employed a variety of techniques in its campaign against the Banda regime. The first critiques of the MCP dictatorship, using *samizdats*, show input from different strands of the movement.⁷⁰ One by lecturer David Kerr and other new blood intellectuals, 'Martyrs', was a justice and human rights discourse.⁷¹ The second, 'An Open letter to John Tembo', by Muluzi and his business colleagues, criticised Tembo's abuse of political power and monopolising of economic activity in Malawi.⁷² These *samizdats* unleashed a culture of 'cheap' informal fax and photocopy machine activism in Malawi which galvanised the neophyte opposition movements. Covert activism was expensive and new blood cadres, largely salaried, feared arrest and job losses. Some businessmen had already experienced

68 'MTL Wanderers Football Club Speaks Out', *Malawi Standard*, 1 August 2003. Muluzi bought Ndirande ('Malawi's Soweto') Bata Bullets (renamed Bakili Bullets) to boost his political popularity in 2002. Humphrey Mvula, a once alleged Young Democrats boss, chairs Wanderers. See *Daily Times*, 5 November 2001.

69 'Corruption-Malawi: Fat Cats Still Bask in Glory', Inter Press News Agency, 12 January 2004, retrieved on 20 August 2004 from <http://www.ipsnews.net/interna.asp?idnews=21872>. Kambalame, later PCC manager and was convicted of stealing from the PCC, allegedly with Dumbo Lemani's knowledge (*ANC Daily News* retrieved on 21 March 2004 from <http://www.anc.org.za/anc/newsbrief/1999/news0219>). In March 2004, Muluzi ordered maize sales from the Strategic Grain Reserve (SGR), donors, regarding the SGR 'as a famine safeguard' objected. *The Nation*, 26 March 2004. K. Kapeta's Presidential Commission suggests that maize 'seep[ed] into the informal sector from ADMARC'.

70 *Samizdats* are photocopied 'underground' leaflets. The first *samizdat* was from Blantyre Polytechnic students.

71 *Samizdat* copies in my archives. See O'Malley, *Living Dangerously*, pp. 139–46.

72 Muluzi *et al.*, *Democracy*, p. 136.

these, thus, between 1991 and early 1992 more businessmen than intellectuals were willing to be involved.⁷³

Major obsessions of the period included secrecy, hence the decision to exclude women, because most new blood and old guard politicians held traditional views of women. The close bonding, in football, business and other arenas of the original players was another factor.⁷⁴ Secrecy also favoured the better networked old guard, who used the period to quietly recruit supporters and raise money. New blood politicians, politically naïve and lacking networks, failed to co-operate and instead tended to compete against each other for influence and power. Leadership, therefore, gravitated towards the business group. The former MCP politicians also effectively used the period of secrecy for self-legitimation. Many told often inaccurate or untrue stories of how they had *politically* battled against Tembo or the Banda system.⁷⁵

North/South Economic Dialogue

Money also played a part in the failure to forge the anxiously hoped-for unity between the Phwezi (or northern) and southern groups.⁷⁶ In 1992, pragmatists on each side felt that uniting would be politically and economically disadvantageous to them; some feared betrayal, and their different methods of generating income did not help. The northern group, largely professional, obtained funding formally via Scandinavian, Dutch, American and British networks, while the southern, business-dominated, group depended more on informal sources. The latter were also aware that 47 per cent of the population live in the southern Region as compared to 12 per cent in the north. Confident of attracting enough central-region Chewa defectors from the MCP, southerners were reluctant to concede presidential leadership – and future patronage – to Chihana, who had a much higher ‘presidential’ profile than Muluzi. Chihana remained confident that he could win the *presidential* race and dismissed the UDP/UDF group as an ‘MCP “B Team” of charcoal sellers and vendors’. Thus, financial reasons contributed to the failure of north/south dialogue, leading to ethnic divisions in the 1994 election.

The Money Imperative, October 1992 to November 1993

AFORD, bolstered by Chihana’s popularity, declared itself an official pressure group on 21 September 1992.⁷⁷ When the UDF followed on 19 October 1992, its underground networks covered most of the south, significant parts of Lilongwe, Salima and Ncheu but barely existed in the north.

Going public placed the opposition groups in the full glare of the state’s scrutiny and stricture. As the need to raise campaign money became more acute, many opposition activists resorted to informal sector *katangale* activities, such as charcoal-vending, running minibuses

73 Unattributable UDF businessman, 1993: ‘little to lose and more to gain’.

74 Malawi’s 1980s and 1990s political culture was male dominated. Women were ‘likely to be party spies’. Dumbo Lemani said, ‘Women like to gossip’ (D. Kerr, ‘Events of 1991–1993, a Personal Memoir, 1994’ (mimeo copy); and E. Mkamanga, *Suffering in Silence* (Glasgow, Dudu Nsomba Publications, 2000).

75 Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 83–4; and O’Malley, *Living Dangerously*, p. 140.

76 Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 55–6 and 98; and O’Malley, *Living Dangerously*, p. 148–9.

77 AFORD (formed in March 1992) succeeded Dr H. Bwanausi’s United Democratic Front for Multiparty Democracy (formed in June 1991).

and exporting rice, sugar and maize to Zambia and Mozambique.⁷⁸ Necessary to this was ownership of lorries and access to cheap or free agricultural produce – formally or informally acquired and sold for profit in the informal market.⁷⁹ Significantly, some of these goods were sourced from ADMARC, SUCOMA and other parastatals.⁸⁰

By June 1993, while AFORD was openly sourcing funds from Europe and America, UDF fundraising remained covert.⁸¹ Funding the UDF were Arab Middle Eastern countries and private European and Asian individuals friendly to major UDF figures. Unlike AFORD, the UDF was able to generate large amounts of internal funding through promises of a future stake in government. In September 1993, a donation of 100,000 pounds was ‘sourced’ from a Scottish Asian family with Malawi connections.⁸² The first major open donation from a sovereign state was from Taiwan, used to fund the UDF annual convention in December 1993.

By the Referendum in June 1993, the UDF and AFORD had become confident highly organised movements with horizontal and vertical networks of patronage. They were also able to attract defectors from, and lose members to, the MCP. The role of money in these shifts is important: the MCP paid defectors, while the opposition groups ‘promised money tomorrow’.⁸³ As the MCP stranglehold loosened, opposition movements attracted more MCP members with these promises – evidence of the lack of significant ideological differences between the parties.

The defining point for the opposition groups came at the end of 1993. At the party conventions, the balance between the new blood with its idealism and the old guard with its pragmatism and money was settled in favour of the latter. The period between the Bishop’s Pastoral Letter, on 8 March 1992, to the referendum in June 1993, had been too long for some of the new blood politicians to resist the temptation of money. Although aware that change (and with it the acquisition of power) was possible, many of them were financially crippled by the long campaign and dependent on money informally acquired by their business colleagues.

At the UDF Convention the elements of secrecy and money privileged the better networked business sector. During elections for the executive, people voted for those who had recruited them – those they knew personally and ‘economically’ – with little concern for political ideology. So crucial was this networking factor that two of the leading former detainees and UDF heavyweights, Brown Mpinganjira and George Ntafu failed to gain selection to the executive because they were virtually unknown to the rank and file who had been recruited through word of mouth by their businessmen colleagues. Mpinganjira was reduced to a ‘personal assistant to the chairman’ until Bakili Muluzi became president, thereafter he was dependent on Muluzi’s patronage.⁸⁴ In contrast, Muluzi emerged as

78 Hence Chihana’s jibes: ‘MCP B team’; ‘charcoal sellers and vendors’ (Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, p. 147).

79 Access to parastatals such as ADMARC and companies such as SUCOMA is crucial. See K. Kapeta (chair) ‘Presidential Commission’. ‘Wanderers Football Club’ names crop up frequently in UDF government corruption scandals. A Sunni Muslim Supreme Council of Malawi letter (*The Chronicle*, 2 June 2001) criticises Muluzi for extravagance, hypocrisy, diverting donated fertiliser, corruption, manipulating Muslim official appointments and other nefarious activities. Stambuli’s mimeo, ‘How Muluzi hoodwinked’, further alleges that Muluzi ‘pocketed a \$2 million Taiwanese donation’; took cash from Malawi Savings Bank Deposits; used the 1994 Fieldwork exercise book purchase to repay British Asian UDF financiers; used the ‘Water Appeal Fund’ to raise UDF funds; secured half of PTA Bank loans for UDF functionaries; appropriated funds from the Malawi Social Action Fund (MASAF); and that he and Kalaria personally got ‘half [of all] cheques from the Malawi Rural Finance Company’.

80 Unattributable personal communications with members of ADMARC, Balaka, March 1993; and see Kapeta (Chair) ‘Presidential Commission’.

81 G. Robertson, Personal oral communication, Hamilton, May 1993.

82 I facilitated this donation from the Scottish Malawi-Asian family to the UDF via Aleke Banda.

83 Lonrho and others were funding the MCP. *Africa Analysis*, 197, 4 (13 May 1994).

84 B.J. Mpinganjira’s business card, 1993–1994.

undisputed leader of the UDF.⁸⁵ There then followed, in both UDF and AFORD, attempts to create regionally balanced executive committees at the expense of ideology and policy. In the first quarter of 1994 the weapon of secrecy, despite the presence of 20 newspapers, continued to be used, especially concerning the origins of party funds.⁸⁶

As the old guard in both parties, and particularly the UDF, consolidated their hold on party mechanisms, as well as networks and membership recruitment, new blood politicians were exercised with the niceties of PAC negotiations and drafting manifestos. And as shown by Fred Nseula's tenure at the National Consultative Council (NCC) during Operation *Bwezani*, they also tasted the superficial aspects of power, such as media publicity.⁸⁷

Their common opposition to Banda obscured the ideological differences between the new blood and old guard politicians. Both groups gave priority to creating a liberal economic climate – under a strong executive – sympathetic to the interests of the trading/retail class rather than the participatory liberal social democracy that most intellectuals desired. The business class's desire for change was clearly articulated by Dumbo Lemani in his *Wina alira!* (It will end in tears for some!), a football-derived slogan that echoed the covert power struggle.⁸⁸ By implying that one had to be on the winning politico-economic side to avoid tears, it facilitated Muluzi's all-inclusive front by attracting some MCP members to the UDF.

After the referendum, new blood politicians did not attempt to de-autocratise Malawi politics nor did they find alternative ways of raising party funds. Their continuing dependency on the business wing of the party allowed the old guard to incorporate 'MCP cultural constructs' – use of women dancers, praise of leaders and anti-intellectualism – into the new parties.⁸⁹ These superficial gestures to culture may have helped to mobilise the *anthu wamba* (peasantry) without empowering it. Indeed, at no time during the UDF's 1993 convention were the socio-economic interests of the peasantry taken into account.⁹⁰ As Dumbo Lemani had predicted already in 1991, the main issue was *mipando yonona* (disposable political economic power).

The Scramble for Parliamentary Seats, 1993–1994

Same as 1961–63. Stupid! It's all business, business, just businessmen!⁹¹

By March 1994, all pretence of a liberal social democratic movement had vanished. The UDF, through recruiting former MCP and AFORD – as well as new – members, became a mass anti-Banda front determined to win power, leaving AFORD largely a 'northern party'. Muluzi's tactics included consolidating the largely informal business network, co-opting many former MCP and AFORD politicians and using informally sourced funds. He also

85 'Muluzi Elected President: UDF – A Government in the Waiting Room', *Enquirer*, 31 December 1993, p. 1. Mpinganjira and Chilumpha still thought the old guard containable (personal communications with both, March and December 1993).

86 Most were owned by politicians. J. Lwanda, 'Paper Tigers: The Rise and Fall of the Independent Media in Malawi, 1961–2001', *Society of Malawi Journal*, 55, 1 (2002), pp. 1–23.

87 Fred Nseula, the National Consultative Council chair when the Army's *Operation Bwezani* disarmed Banda's paramilitary Young Pioneers, became a 'presentational leader without power', deftly assuring the public and the MCP that the army was not staging a coup. For an account of *Bwezani* see K. Phiri, 'A Case of Revolutionary Change in Contemporary Malawi: The Malawi Army and the Disarming of the Malawi Young Pioneers (MYP)', *Journal of Peace, Conflict and Military Studies*, 1, 1 (March 2002), pp. 1–10.

88 Lemani specified *mipando* (chairs of authority), implying political and economic power. See Kerr, 'Events of 1991–1993'.

89 This was presented by the old guard as 'No to another educated Banda!'

90 I was a delegate (National Resources College, Lilongwe, December 1993).

91 Bambo Gome, of Salima, to author at the UDF convention, 22 December 1993.

exploited ideas, strategies and sound bites from the new bloods while creating an executive that was financially dependent on his core group. This resulted in a southern-dominated UDF capable of winning most seats in the south and sufficient seats in the centre to win power. From 3 December 1993, Operation *Bwezani*, which disarmed Banda's paramilitary MYPs, became a blessing for the opposition groups. While the MYP was still intact the prospects of the MCP using money and intimidation to rig the vote were very high, for between the Referendum and *Bwezani*, the MCP had continued to offer financial inducements to a number of key UDF and AFORD members.⁹²

Muluzi now exploited critical individuals among the financially debilitated and intra-competitive new blood politicians by promising them cabinet posts in his future government. This persuaded many not to stand for parliamentary seats, which would have helped them to establish local power bases, a mistake that would lead to their later dependency on presidential patronage.⁹³ Between December 1993 and the elections in May 1994, promissory concessions were made to vendors, transport operators and charcoal burners, and intense fund-raising efforts were made by the opposition groups to oppose the MCP's 'plundering of the Treasury'.⁹⁴ By the end of the parliamentary candidate selection process in March 1994, the business elements had completely wrested control from the hesitant and disorganised new bloods in both AFORD and UDF.⁹⁵

The success of the old guard in distancing themselves from their Banda-era activities helped the UDF when it began to swallow the smaller parties led by people who had previously dismissed Muluzi and the UDF as no more than an 'MCP "B" Team'. Between 1993 and 1994 most prominent members from parties led by Kanyama Chiume, Harry Bwanausi, George Kanyanya and Tim Mangwazu had defected to the UDF, attracted by promises of jobs. By April 1994 all these parties had joined the Common Electoral Group, leaving Kamlepo Kalua's Malawi Democratic Party as the only small independent party.

1994–1999: Muluzi the Master 'Political Technician'⁹⁶

The success of AFORD had been predicated on the ability of Chakufwa Chihana to construct a liberating and popular national persona, shorn of Banda's dictatorial tendencies. Imbued with 1960s 'messianic political culture', however, he merely emulated Banda's persona, cultural superficialities and temperament, exactly what Malawians in the 1990s wanted to avoid. Also being a northerner did not help. In contrast, the 1991 to early 1994 UDP and UDF were more like co-operatives, with Muluzi as the co-ordinating network chairman.

Because the world's attention was on Banda, neither Muluzi as an individual nor the UDF's policies came under significant scrutiny.⁹⁷ His experience as a former MCP secretary-general gave him an advantage over other potential leaders. He capitalised on his industriousness, sense of humour and exceptional presentational talents, qualities that would help to facilitate the public acceptance of his anti-constitutional and anti-democratic tendencies. Later, while

92 Personal communications, including Headman M. Mayere, Malindi, 9 March, 1994.

93 Bakili Muluzi, personal communication, 16 March 1994.

94 A. Banda, Minister of Finance, personal communication, Blantyre 3 June 1995 (J Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, p. 226); Malawi Government, *Malawi Social Indicators Survey* (Zomba, Government Press, 1996), p. 4; and H. Meinhardt and N. Patel, *Malawi's Process of Democratic Transition between 1990 and 1993* (Lilongwe, Konrad Adenauer Foundation), p. 56.

95 Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 134–53 and 280.

96 Self-description, 30 March 2003 (MBC News transcript, Blantyre, 30 March 2003).

97 Challenged about Muluzi's criminality, UDF supporters declared, '*Bola wakubayu...*' (Better the thief [Muluzi] – than the tyrant [Banda]).

declaring himself a democrat, he interfered with civil service appointments, the Constitution and the judiciary while turning a blind eye to UDF youth violence.⁹⁸

Muluzi 'invested' in the neophyte party by donating offices at Limbe and soon emerged as UDF's financial co-ordinator on behalf of Patrick Mbewe, James Makhumula, Charles Kahumbe, Harry Thompson and other *achikulire* founders and funders. After the Convention in December 1993, Muluzi continued to be an indispensable link in obtaining covert and overt financial backing from both endogenous and exogenous sources. He later exploited this central position to transform the UDF from a pressure group to an established party. Within a few months of coming into power in May 1994, Muluzi improved on the Banda model of patronage so effectively that he was able to neutralise his once fractious party executive using the subtle tools of parastatal, ministerial and diplomatic appointments. He also stifled dissent by delaying executive and annual convention meetings until total obedience was assured.⁹⁹

If diplomatic and parastatal appointments were his to give, the distribution of SUCOMA sugar quotas to party supporters was not. Yet SUCOMA sugar quotas were given to those UDF, AFORD and MCP politicians who were in his patronage group. This attracted more key central region MCP members to his party, diluting the power of the residual new blood politicians and making a mockery of the original Mikuyu 'democratic dreams'.¹⁰⁰ But Muluzi was to repeatedly remind his critics that he was living within the parameters of the United Democratic Front.¹⁰¹

By July 1995, like Banda before him, Muluzi had gained complete control of formal governmental, diplomatic and parastatal appointments, as well as the informal sugar distribution quotas. He was also well on his way to becoming Africa's 'third-richest president'. I suggested, in 2002, that 'what Banda had owned in metaphor, Muluzi owned in reality' by 2001.¹⁰² Since taking power in May 1994, Muluzi had rapidly built up a business empire that came to include coal mining, fuel distribution, transport, real estate in Malawi and Europe, retail, broadcasting and aspects of the service industry.¹⁰³ His Asian business associates in the Kalaria Group had helped. Such was his formal and informal fund-raising from local and overseas sources that by May 1995 he was able to give the 120 UDF and AFORD MPs K50,000 each, a gesture that established money as the rationale for a post-Banda political career, as prophesied by Chisiza.¹⁰⁴

The monetary incentive was part of the UDF/AFORD coalition agreement in September 1994. With AFORD's help the UDF passed legislation removing the Press Corporation from MCP control, depriving the opposition party of its main source of income.¹⁰⁵ To further

98 Muluzi *et al.*, *Democracy*; and B. Muluzi, *Mau Anga* (Pretoria, Skotaville Media, 2002). See W.J. Chirwa, and E. Kanyongolo (eds), 'The State of Democracy in Malawi (draft report)' (Zomba, Centre for Social Research, 2000).

99 Personal communications E. Kazembe, Blantyre, 6 June 1994; A. Makhilira, Blantyre, 26 November 1999; P. Mbewe, Blantyre, 2–4 June 1994 and 28 February 2004; and other UDF executive members. Muluzi neutered 'critical executive elements' by delaying their government or parastatal appointments.

100 Contained in the UDF *Referendum Mission Statement* (Blantyre, May 1993; copy in my archives): 'In the mid-to late eighties, the dreams of Dr Banda's detainees, the aspirations of Malawi's young intellectuals, the concerns of the business class, the fears of the clergy, the frustrations of the masses and the winds of change in Eastern Europe and Africa coincided and led to the formation of such an underground protest movement'.

101 B. Muluzi, personal communication, St. James Hotel, London, 3 March 1994.

102 Banda's personal fortune was much smaller than Muluzi's 2004 fortune. The *Nation's* editorial of 27 March 1996 observes: '[The] truth of *zonse zimene zaKamuzu Banda* (everything belongs to Banda) was not so much legal as political'. Muluzi's use of parastatal funds far outstripped Banda's. If Banda creamed profits from state parastatals, Muluzi took profits and capital. See M. Namingha, 'Muluzi Siphons MK1 Billion from ADMARC', *The Sunday Dispatch*, Lilongwe, 21 March 2004; and K. Kapeta (chair) 'Presidential Commission'.

103 *Africa Confidential*, 45, 2 (23 January 2004).

104 D. Chisiza, *Africa: What Lies Ahead?* (New Delhi, Indian Council for Africa, 1961), pp. 1–21. At US \$2,000 a month, MPs' salaries make politics a very attractive occupation.

105 Comment in *The Nation*, 15 May 1995; Comment in the *Enquirer*, 17 May 1995; 'Muluzi Dishes out the Cash to Dancers', *The Chronicle*, Lilongwe, 4 June 2001. J.K. van Donge, 'Kamuzu's Legacy: The Democratisation of Malawi: Or Searching for the Rules of the Game in African Politics', *African Affairs*, 94 (1995), pp. 227–57.

maximise the ruling party elite's business interests the Muluzi regime exploited the IMF/World Bank privatisation programme. The government allowed parastatals to deteriorate through poor management and 'siphoning off' of funds and then floated them for sale, with Muluzi and his associates the usual beneficiaries.¹⁰⁶

The UDF patronage system, unlike that of the MCP, was more decentralised; it gave MPs and regional and district leaders more space for patronage-related activities of their own. To enable this, MP's emoluments were increased year on year. This ability to control vast patronage funds enabled the UDF to win most by-elections and scrape through to the 1999 elections.¹⁰⁷

De-Autocratisation versus Third Termism: 1999 and Beyond¹⁰⁸

Confident in his control of patronage funds, after the 1999 elections Muluzi set about changing the Constitution, claiming that this would facilitate a further UDF electoral victory in 2004. Mpinganjira, unaware of Muluzi's true intentions, acted as agent and courted MCP's Tembo.¹⁰⁹ Tembo's acquiescence drove a wedge between his and Gwanda Chakuamba's MCP factions, weakening the party. Similar overtures, accompanied by monetary inducements, were made to dissident elements of AFORD, chiefs and others.¹¹⁰

When the presidential contenders, Mpinganjira and Chilumpha, realised that Muluzi wanted a third presidential term they rebelled. Together with businessman James Makhumula and several UDF MPs, Mpinganjira founded the National Democratic Alliance (NDA), while Chilumpha remained a dissident voice within UDF. In the event, the Third Term bill failed by only three parliamentary votes on 4 July, 2002, evidence that Muluzi's funds, including the K3,000,000 allegedly given to Kwauli Msiska for introducing the bill, had nearly paid dividends.¹¹¹ Significantly, Muluzi's grassroots popularity and networks were such that he would have won a popular referendum.¹¹²

Having lost the Third Term argument, Muluzi brought some AFORD stalwarts back into a coalition government and nominated a 70-year-old economist, Bingu wa Mutharika, as his successor, anointing himself party 'chairman'. Using the model of Julius Nyerere, he hoped to control the party and the post-election UDF government. The Muslim lobby and donors pressured him to appoint as Mutharika's running mate, Chilumpha, whose supporters had secured half of the places on the new UDF executive.¹¹³

¹⁰⁶ *Africa Confidential*, 45, 2 (23 January 2004), p. 46.

¹⁰⁷ See H. Englund, 'Winning Elections, Losing Legitimacy: Multi-partyism and the Neo-patrimonial State in Malawi', in M. Cowen and L. Laasko (eds), *Multiparty Elections in Africa* (Oxford, James Currey), pp. 172–86; and B. Mpinganjira's admission that the UDF 'rigged' the 1999 elections (*The Chronicle*, 15 March 2004).

¹⁰⁸ J. Mapanje, 'Orality and the Memory of Justice', *Leeds African Studies Bulletin*, 60 (1995).

¹⁰⁹ Tembo was offered the vice-presidency in a government of national unity.

¹¹⁰ 'Third Term Defeated', *The Chronicle*, 8 July 2002, p. 1; and 'Trowned: Parliament Throws out Open Term Bill', *The Daily Times*, 5 July 2002, pp. 1–3. See 'Anti-Corruption Bureau Probes Muluzi, [Chief] Kaomba on Third Term', *The Nation*, 7 July 2005.

¹¹¹ 'Trowned', *The Daily Times*, 5 July 2002.

¹¹² Muluzi relied on paid UDF party workers; 'Young Democrats' who intimidated opponents; most UDF and some opposition MPs and chiefs; and the police National Intelligence Bureau (NIB). One UDF member (N.O.) boasted: 'every visit to Sanjika earns me K500,000'. See 'Chiefs Probed on Third Term Bill', *The Nation*, 2 May 2005, p. 1.

¹¹³ *The Chronicle*, 20 August 2003, p. 1. Chilumpha, a Muslim, was favoured to succeed Muluzi before the anti-Muslim backlash to Muluzi's 'Islamisation and Third Term agendas'. 'Many' Christians objected to 'another Muslim president'. Mutharika's appointment was to 'woo Christian voters', neutralise Mpinganjira's candidature and impress western donors. It was also Muluzi's attempt to install a malleable successor who would protect him from future prosecution for alleged corruption (R. Tenthani, 'Moving on', *BBC Focus on Africa* magazine, 15, 2 (April–June 2004), pp. 28–9).

Between 1999 and 2004, the UDF's informal sector money-generating efforts had excluded and disadvantaged many young urban independent businessmen and professionals on whose economic territory it had encroached. New political parties formed in response, including the Malawi Forum for Unity and Development (MAFUNDE), the Progressive People's Movement (PPM) and the People's Transformation Party (PETRA). In addition, the MCP split, with Chakuamba forming the Republican Party (RP). Two Muluzi-facilitated 'spoiler' parties also formed, including Hetherwick Ntaba's New Congress for Democracy (NCD).

The UDF treasure chest ensured that Mutharika scraped through the presidential elections with 35 per cent of the presidential vote. Despite the assumption that he was a puppet of Muluzi, on becoming president in May 2004, Mutharika announced that he would 'reverse the corruption of the Muluzi era'.¹¹⁴ This 'insult to the hand that nurtured him' led to conflict with Muluzi and his old guard, including Sam Mpasu, Harry Thompson, Friday Jumbe and Humphrey Mvula. At the beginning of 2005, a number of UDF figures, such as Mvula and Jumbe, were charged with corrupt practices. The parliamentary UDF, led by Ntafu, however, thwarted Mutharika's legislative programme for the first 12 months of his rule, including blocking the passage of the budget in June 2005. Instead of tackling Muluzi through judicial and executive processes, Mutharika chose, prematurely, to form his own party, the Democratic Progressive Party (DPP).

Once the party was formed Mutharika and his associates discovered that the need to raise money for party political patronage overshadowed their pursuit of development programmes.¹¹⁵ The 'clean DPP party' soon found itself 'shamelessly wooing Asians', other potential funders and members, much in the way that Banda and Muluzi had done.¹¹⁶

Conclusion

I have outlined the way in which informally acquired money influences the postcolonial political history of Malawi and argued that this political exploitation of the cash/barter and formal/informal interfaces should not be seen as the 'traditionalisation' of politics or as 'disorderly' politics, for the processes involved are essentially structural.¹¹⁷ Bayart and Chabal, viewing the neo-patrimonial political leaders as part of the traditional African structure, hold African cultural particularities largely responsible for the condition of the postcolonial African state.¹¹⁸ In contrast, I contend that Ekeh came nearer the mark with his 1975 theory of the 'two publics'. If we modify the 'two publics' to refer to the unresolved dichotomy of the rural/peasantry context on one hand and the elite/urban context on the other, we see an essentially socio-economic problem compounded and masked by a cultural facade.¹¹⁹

114 'Wadi to Probe Muluzi on UDF Vehicles', *The Nation*, 4 October 2004.

115 'Government Lies on PSI Contract' and 'More Dirt on K20m Credit Scheme', *The Chronicle*, 30 June 2005, Lilongwe.

116 'Bingu Entices MCP MPs', *The Chronicle*, 4 April 2005; 'Zikhale exposed', *The Chronicle*, 5 May 2005. See the resignation letter of Zikhale N'goma, one of the DPP's founding fathers, retrieved from <http://maelstrom.stjohns.edu/CGI/wa.exe?A2=ind0509&L=nyasanet&P=R99769> and J. Lwanda, 'Mutharika, Mbuya and Mipando: When the Elephants Fight', retrieved from http://www.malawi-update.org/index.php?issue_number=54&articleid=110

117 Compare C. Baylies and M. Szeftel's 'Democratising and the 1991 Elections in Zambia', in J. Daniel, R. Southall and M. Szeftel (eds), *Voting for Democracy* (Aldershot, Ashgate, 1999), pp. 83–109.

118 J-F. Bayart, 'Finishing with the Idea of the Third World: The Concept of the Political Trajectory', in P. Chabal (ed.), *Rethinking Third World Politics* (London, Longman, 1991); J-F. Bayart, *The State in Africa* (New York, Longman, 1993); and Chabal and Daloz, *Africa Works*.

119 P. Ekeh, 'Colonialism and the Two Publics in Africa: A Theoretical Statement', *Comparative Studies in Society and History*, 17, 1 (1975), pp. 91–112; and E. Osaghae, 'Colonialism and Civil Society in Africa: The Perspective of Ekeh's Two Publics', presented at the Symposium on Canonical Works and Continuing Innovation in African Arts and Humanities, Accra Ghana, 17–19 September 2003.

The elite/urban public is the site of neo-patrimonial and state formation. Ekeh's assertion that '[i]t is to the colonial experience that any valid conceptualisation of the unique nature of African politics must look', though slightly overstated, points to the social and structural changes imprinted on the African continent by colonialism.¹²⁰ Although colonialism was in some respects a limited assault on the African socio-economic space, postcolonial state formation, state governance, formal economy and all those factors associated with the disposal of state resources are inherited from colonial structures and practices. Malawi's present dual economy is a legacy of the unfinished colonial project.

The political-economic legacy of colonialism has been inherited, exploited and perpetuated by the African elite. As in the case of *katangale*, two varieties of *achikulire* are recognised, the traditional rural variety and the urban variety with its patron–client political networks. The former, part of the hierarchical cultural, political, social and economic ordering of things, has yet to find a significant voice in nation-state politics. The latter, like neo-*katangale*, is an astute exploitation of culture for political ends by actors with the ability to straddle the 'two publics'. As Mapanje's poem, 'Coming home without chauffeurs', demonstrates, the political *achikulire*, while parading 'traditional' colours, is of a transient nature.¹²¹

Transient though they may be, these politicians exploit distinct historically derived socio-economic spaces. During the period from 1994 to 2004, these spaces included the IMF/World Bank privatisation initiatives, the donor-funded grain reserves and a weak civil society. It is not coincidental that the current ruling elite is composed of former Banda-era dissidents and those Banda loyalists with whom they compromised. Likewise, the most 'disgruntled' of the young businessmen, professionals and politicians who fought the UDF regime are now pre-eminent in the ruling DPP 'alliance'.¹²² Indeed, criticism of the UDF by the young people's parties in 2004 resembled that of the UDF of the MCP in 1994 – exploiting ideals of political process, constitutionality and human rights for their legitimisation. Yet all the new parties were elite 'top-down' or 'briefcase' parties with minimal grassroots support and, behind the scenes, controlled by founding *achikulire*. As the economy of Malawi has deteriorated, these new party-formation processes are intra-elite cycles of re-ordering and compromise. Although peasants did not have much input, the party elites exploited their decorative 'traditional' cultural ideals, just as they exploited the ideals of universal human rights in 1992 and of good governance and famine relief in 2004. Far from acting from 'traditional' perspectives, elite politicians cleverly exploited unstable and inequitable socio-economic spaces.¹²³

From 1991 onwards, Muluzi used these strategies to transform a coalition of disparate 'disgruntled' groups into the UDF. To succeed, Muluzi's patronage system had to be all-inclusive and, by definition, lacking in any coherent ideology. Thus, a form of ideology-free inclusive party politics, exploiting *achikulire*-based networks, became the norm.¹²⁴ The original liberal social democratic pretensions were abandoned as money became the dominant party issue, rather than policy and ideology. The business elements quickly gained ascendancy and outwitted and side-lined new blood elements.¹²⁵ In contrast, Chihana's AFORD – with its educated core and narrower informal base – fared less well.

120 Ekeh, 'Colonialism and the Two Publics', p. 93.

121 'We all know why you have come back home with no national colours flanking your black Mercedes Benz ... / Welcome home to the poached reed-huts you left behind; / Welcome to these stunted pit-latrines where only the pungent whiff of green flies ...' (Mapanje, 'Coming home without chauffeurs', in *Of Chameleons and Gods* (Oxford, Heinemann, 1981), p. 59.

122 'The disgruntled are easily appeased'. Malindi rural woman, unattributable, July 2003.

123 Using one definition of culture, see A. Kuper, *Culture: The Anthropologist's Account* (London, Harvard University Press, 1999), pp. 69 and 226–47; no lasting non-personality 'political cultural' institutions are being built.

124 See Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 17–37; and Phiri and Ross, *Democratisation*, pp. 9–16.

125 See Lwanda, *Promises, Power, Politics*, pp. 86–187.

The first three years of UDF rule were dominated by three vigorously pursued imperatives: the ruling group's acquisitive urges; the need to destroy or else co-opt Tembo and other MCP leaders; and the need to raise money for the 1999 elections. Inevitably the first violent casualty of the money imperative was Malawi's economy. The UDF comprador class had little interest in manufacturing, other creative industries or diversification; many estates became run down and Malawi suffered from the aggressive South African export drive.

The second effect of the money patronage culture was the failure to introduce a 'de-autocratisation' agenda, resulting in Muluzi's quest for a Third Term. The conjunction of informally acquired money and fluid patron–client networks facilitated the development of money as a tool of repression. The threats and economic violence of the *kuthetsana* (finishing off rivals) thrived in intra- and extra-party affiliation quarrels. Despite having fewer Young Democrats than Banda had MYPs, by paying them to administer physical violence, Muluzi managed to cow influential sections of Malawi civil society for an entire decade.¹²⁶

A third effect was an increase in elite nepotism, cronyism and neo-*katangale* culture. Many managers of parastatals and other key companies became complicit in the processes of 'siphoning' off resources from their organisations and into the informal sector.¹²⁷

Finally, informally derived money became a metaphor for dependency. The UDF created a popular patronage that '[paid] its members rather than [forced] them to donate'.¹²⁸ Muluzi handed out bundles of money to 'alleviate poverty' – money often diverted from government sources.¹²⁹ Muluzi's UDF, in a systematic (and not at all 'disorderly') fashion, then took advantage of various initiatives, such as the Malawi Social Action Fund, the IMF privatisation programme and donor funds, to acquire the resources for patronage.

Because the huge amount of patronage money associated with the Muluzi era cannot be generated within Malawi over the longer term, there is the danger that the activities of the political comprador class may be inserting Malawi into international networks of extraversion. In May 2005, the Finance Bank was closed for alleged money laundering.¹³⁰ During Muluzi's period, a large number of Lebanese and Asian businessmen¹³¹ acquired properties and residency permits, some being allowed to flout planning laws.¹³²

Given the power of informally acquired money, its sourcing methods and the development of a patron–client political culture, it will be difficult to produce a new generation of leaders – untainted with the culture of informal party fund-raising – from within existing parties unless these new leaders find ways to source funds formally. Politicians seeking legitimate sources of political funding will struggle to identify these in an essentially small agrarian economy. Given the hold of the *achikulire* on sources of political funding, Malawi's political future seems likely to bring increasing informalisation and criminality.

126 Using institutional strategic informers the UDF 'economically disabled' potential dissidents (personal communication with politicians and civil servants, 1999–2002). Many observers see the hand of the Muluzi regime in the 'institutional killing' of dissidents like James Njoloma, Manken Chigawa, Matafale and Stambuli, as well as the assaults on religious leaders (*The Nation*, 29 March 2004).

127 See 'Privatisation Delay Drains Resources', *Nation Online*, retrieved from <http://www.nationmalawi.com/print.asp?articleID=7670> on 24 March 2004. Failing parastatals were 'bailed' out by the Muluzi government whose party functionaries, as board members and managers, had 'drain[ed]' the companies.

128 Unattributable UDF female supporter, July 2003, Mangochi.

129 The Malawi National Roads Authority's (MNRA) road fuel levy fund was often raided for UDF rallies (Personal communication, unattributable, Lilongwe, 19 February 2004); 'EU withdraws Funding for Nsanje-Bangula Road', *Nation*, 6 October 2004; and 'Muluzi Leaves UDF Women Stranded', *The Dispatch*, 28 March 2004.

130 J-F Bayart, 'Africa in the World: A History of Extraversion', *African Affairs*, 99 (2000), pp. 217–67; 'Malawi-Libya Saga Deepens', *The Chronicle*, 9 May 2005; and 'Finance Bank Closed Down', *The Daily Times*, 20 May 2005.

131 Malawi business, reflecting society in general, is a male-dominated sector.

132 'Mosque on Illegal Land', *Weekend Democratus*, 15 May 2005.

Thus, as Malawi politics becomes dependent on informal funding, the educated elite, with its donor funding and 'project proposals' mentality will become even more marginalised. The contests for patronage funding will further exploit peasants' *katangale* spaces without any development agenda. Modern nation-state political processes in Malawi, dating from the colonial era's battles of cash with barter, have never yet adequately addressed the problems of the people who provide the informal economic base of politics in Malawi – the poor subsistence-based peasantry.¹³³ If political theory is to be relevant to the Malawian context, and constitutional 'political process' politics made sustainable, the formal/informal dimension must be addressed – and at least partly through better rural representation.¹³⁴ Muluzi's so-called success in leading Malawi for a decade demonstrated the violent power of informally acquired money. Muluzi's political culture, like Banda's repression, violated personal and political party independence.

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133 T. Maliyamoko and F. Kanyongolo, *When Political Parties Clash* (Dar es Salaam, TEMA Publishers, 2003), concludes that parties are 'understood as vehicles for the acquisition of power [...] and for the rewards of power' rather than as vehicles for specific programmes (p. 301). See also Englund (ed.), *A Democracy of Chameleons*, pp. 17–18.

134 F. Kanyongolo, 'The Limits of Liberal Democratic Constitutionalism in Malawi', in Phiri and Ross (eds), *Democratisation*, pp. 353–75. Contrary to elite discourse, traditional authority has provided rural Malawi with continuity and stability in the face of severe pre-colonial, colonial and postcolonial social, economic and political shocks (Lwanda, *Politics, Culture and Medicine*, pp. 53–62 and pp. 64–109).